

# Lab Sheet 01

## Part 01: Fundamentals

### 1. Printing and Comments

Let's start by printing some values and adding comments to explain the code.

# Printing a number (Here the comment is shown with #)

```
print(200)
```

# Printing a string

```
print("Dog")
```

---

### 2. Mathematical Operations

Perform basic arithmetic operations such as addition, multiplication, division, exponentiation, remainder, and integer division.

# Arithmetic operations

```
print(1 + 2) # Addition
```

```
print(2 * 3) # Multiplication
```

```
print(4 / 2) # Division
```

```
print(4 ^ 2) # Exponentiation using ^
```

```
print(4 ** 2) # Exponentiation using **
```

```
print(5 %% 2) # Remainder
```

```
print(5 %/% 2) # Integer division
```

---

### 3. Relational Operations

Compare values using relational operators like greater than, less than, equal to, and not equal to.

# Relational operations

```
print(20 > 10) # Greater than
```

```
print(30 < 20) # Less than
```

```
print(50 >= 30) # Greater than or equal to
```

```
print(10 == 10) # Equal
```

```
print(10 != 10) # Not equal
```

---

### 4. Logical Operations

Combine conditions using logical operators such as AND, OR, and NOT.

# Logical operations

```
print((20 > 10) && (30 <= 50)) # AND
```

```
print((20 < 10) || (20 == 20)) # OR
```

```
print(!(10 == 10)) # NOT
```

---

### 5. Variables

Define and manipulate variables, and check which variables exist in the environment.

# Assign values

```
x = 10
```

```
y = 20
```

```
# Addition
```

```
z = x + y
```

```
print(z)
```

```
# List variables
```

```
print(ls())
```

```
# Remove variable x
```

```
rm(x)
```

```
print(ls())
```

```
# Remove all variables
```

```
rm(list = ls())
```

```
print(ls())
```

---

## 6. Mathematical Functions

Explore built-in mathematical functions like summation, absolute value, square root, logarithms, exponentials, and rounding.

```
# Mathematical functions
```

```
print(sum(10, 20))
```

```
print(abs(-20))
```

```
print(sqrt(25))
```

```
print(log(10)) # Natural log
```

```
print(exp(5)) # Exponential
print(round(3.245))
print(round(10.35, 1))
```

---

## 7. Primitive Data Types

Explore different data types in R, such as numeric, integer, character, logical, and complex. Verify their types using the `class()` function.

```
# Data types
```

```
num = 1.23
```

```
int = 12L
```

```
char = "Cat"
```

```
log = TRUE
```

```
comp = 23 + 3i
```

```
# Check types
```

```
print(class(num))
```

```
print(class(int))
```

```
print(class(char))
```

```
print(class(log))
```

```
print(class(comp))
```

---

## 8. Casting Data Types

Convert between data types, such as numeric to character, character to numeric, and logical to numeric.

```
# Casting data types
```

```
x = 12
```

```
y = as.character(x)
```

```
print(y)
```

```
print(class(y))
```

```
x = "12"
```

```
y = as.numeric(x)
```

```
print(y)
```

```
print(class(y))
```

```
x = TRUE
```

```
y = as.numeric(x)
```

```
print(y)
```

```
print(class(y))
```

---

## 9. User Input

Accept user input and process it, such as converting age input from character to numeric.

```
# User input
```

```
name = readline(prompt = "Enter your name: ")
```

```
age = readline(prompt = "Enter your age: ")
```

```
print(name)
```

```
print(age)
```

```
# Convert age to numeric
```

```
age = as.numeric(age)
```

```
print(age)
```

---

## Part 02: Compound Data Structures

---

### 1. Vectors

#### Creating Vectors

1. Create numeric, character, and mixed vectors using `c()`. Observe coercion when mixing types.
2. Generate sequences using `1:10`, `seq()`, and `rep()`.

```
# Examples of vector creation
```

```
numeric_vector = c(12, 22, 23, 34, 35)
```

```
character_vector = c("Dog", "Cat", "Rat")
```

```
mixed_vector = c(12, "Man", 23)
```

```
sequence_vector = seq(10, 50, by = 5)
```

```
repeated_vector = rep("Dog", 5)
```

#### Indexing and Slicing

Access specific elements, slices, and apply Boolean masking.

```
# Indexing and slicing
```

```
vector = c(23, 33, 34, 32, 45, 50, 65)
```

```
element = vector[1]
```

```
slice = vector[1:3]
```

```
boolean_masked = vector[vector > 40]
```

## Element-Wise Operations

Perform arithmetic and comparisons on vectors.

```
# Element-wise operations
```

```
vector1 = c(2, 3, 4)
```

```
vector2 = c(3, 4, 5)
```

```
sum_vector = vector1 + vector2
```

```
comparison = vector1 > 2
```

## Summary Functions

Explore functions like `sum()`, `mean()`, `sd()`, and `range()`.

```
# Summary functions
```

```
vector = c(2, 3, 4, 5)
```

```
print(sum(vector))
```

```
print(mean(vector))
```

```
print(sd(vector))
```

```
print(range(vector))
```

## Other Vector Functions

Use `append()`, `sort()`, `unique()`, and more for practical operations.

```
# Additional vector functions
```

```
vector = c(20, 10, 20, 30)
```

```
appended_vector = append(vector, 40)
```

```
sorted_vector = sort(vector)
```

```
unique_values = unique(vector)
```

```
sampld_values = sample(vector, 2)
```

---

## 2. Matrices

### Creating Matrices

1. Create matrices using `matrix()`. Explore row-wise and column-wise filling.

```
# Matrix creation
```

```
matrix1 = matrix(1:6, nrow = 3, ncol = 2)
```

```
matrix2 = matrix(1:6, nrow = 3, ncol = 2, byrow = TRUE)
```

### Matrix Properties

Determine dimensions, structure, and summaries.

```
# Matrix properties
```

```
print(dim(matrix1))
```

```
print(summary(matrix1))
```

### Merging Matrices

Combine matrices using `cbind()` and `rbind()`.

```
# Merging matrices
```

```
matrix1 = matrix(1:4, nrow = 2)
```

```
matrix2 = matrix(5:8, nrow = 2)
```

```
horizontal_merge = cbind(matrix1, matrix2)
```



```
vertical_merge = rbind(matrix1, matrix2)
```

## Matrix Indexing and Operations

Access rows, columns, and perform matrix arithmetic.

```
# Matrix indexing
```

```
matrix1 = matrix(1:9, nrow = 3)
```

```
print(matrix1[1, ]) # First row
```

```
print(matrix1[, 2]) # Second column
```

```
print(matrix1[1:2, 2:3])
```

```
# Matrix operations
```

```
matrix1 = matrix(c(1, 2, 3, 4), nrow = 2)
```

```
matrix2 = matrix(c(5, 6, 7, 8), nrow = 2)
```

```
matrix_addition = matrix1 + matrix2
```

```
matrix_subtraction = matrix1 - matrix2
```

```
matrix_multiplication = matrix1 * matrix2 # Element-wise
```

```
matrix_dot_product = matrix1 %*% matrix2 # Matrix multiplication
```

```
matrix_transpose = t(matrix1)
```

```
print(matrix_addition)
```

```
print(matrix_transpose)
```

## Advanced Matrix Operations

Calculate determinants, inverse, and diagonal elements.

```
# Determinants and inverse
```

```
matrix3 = matrix(c(4, 7, 2, 6), nrow = 2)
```

```
det_value = det(matrix3)
inverse_matrix = solve(matrix3)
print(det_value)
print(inverse_matrix)
```

```
# Diagonal elements
diag_elements = diag(matrix3)
print(diag_elements)
```

---

### **3. Factors**

#### **Unordered Factors**

Convert categorical data into factors.

```
# Unordered factors
gender = factor(c("Male", "Female", "Male"))
print(gender)
```

#### **Ordered Factors**

Specify an order for factor levels.

```
# Ordered factors
levels = factor(c("Low", "Medium", "High"), levels = c("Low", "Medium", "High"),
ordered = TRUE)
print(levels)
```

---

## 4. Lists

### Creating Lists

Combine multiple data types into a list.

```
# List creation
```

```
my_list = list(  
    vector = c(1, 2, 3),  
    matrix = matrix(1:4, nrow = 2),  
    char = "Hello"  
)  
print(my_list)
```

---

## 5. Data Frames

### Manual Creation

Create data frames from vectors.

```
# Data frame creation
```

```
name = c("Kane", "Jane", "David")  
age = c(23, 33, 34)  
marks = c(89, 78, 88)  
df = data.frame(name, age, marks)  
print(df)
```

### Accessing Columns

Access columns using [] and \$.

```
# Accessing columns
```

```
print(df["name"])
```

```
print(df$name)
```

## **Indexing and Slicing**

Access specific rows and columns.

```
# Indexing and slicing
```

```
print(df[1, 1])
```

```
print(df[1:2, ])
```

## **Modifying Data Frames**

Change elements, add, and remove columns.

```
# Modifying data frames
```

```
df$grade = ifelse(df$marks > 80, "A", "B")
```

```
print(df)
```

## **Boolean Masking**

Filter rows based on conditions.

```
# Boolean masking
```

```
filtered_df = df[df$marks > 80, ]
```

```
print(filtered_df)
```

## **Data Frame Functions**

Explore head(), tail(), dim(), nrow(), ncol(), colnames(), rownames(), rowSums(), colSums(), rowMeans(), colMeans(), summary(), and str().

```
# Data frame functions
```

```
print(head(df))
```

```
print(tail(df))
```

```
print(dim(df))  
print(nrow(df))  
print(ncol(df))  
print(colnames(df))  
print(rownames(df))  
print(rowSums(df[, c("age", "marks")]))  
print(colSums(df[, c("age", "marks")]))  
print(rowMeans(df[, c("age", "marks")]))  
print(colMeans(df[, c("age", "marks")]))  
print(summary(df))  
print(str(df))
```

### **Changing Columns to Factors**

Convert categorical columns to factors in a data frame.

```
# Changing to factors
```

```
df$name = factor(df$name)
```

```
print(str(df))
```

### **Working with CSV Files**

Import and explore data from CSV files.

```
# Reading CSV files
```

```
data = read.csv("data.csv")
```

```
print(head(data))
```

## Additional Data Frame Operations

Perform more column operations such as creating new columns based on conditions, renaming columns, and applying functions across rows or columns.

# Adding new columns

```
data$new_column = data$marks * 2
```

```
print(data)
```

# Renaming columns

```
colnames(data)[colnames(data) == "marks"] = "Scores"
```

```
print(colnames(data))
```

# Applying a function

```
data$scaled_marks = scale(data$Scores)
```

```
print(data)
```

## Using the Apply Family of Functions

Apply functions to rows or columns using `apply()`, `lapply()`, and `sapply()`.

# Apply functions

```
data$average_score = apply(data[, c("age", "Scores")], 1, mean)
```

```
print(data)
```

```
column_sums = sapply(data[, c("age", "Scores")], sum)
```

```
print(column_sums)
```

```
list_structure = lapply(data[, c("age", "Scores")], summary)

print(list_structure)
```

## Part 03: Flow Control Structures

### 1. If Statements

**01)** Write a program to check if a number is positive. Print "Positive" if it is greater than zero.

```
number = 5

if(number > 0) {

  print("Positive")

}
```

**02)** Write a program to check if a given year is a leap year. A year is a leap year if it is divisible by 4 and not divisible by 100, except when it is divisible by 400.

```
year = 2024

if((year %% 4 == 0 && year %% 100 != 0) || (year %% 400 == 0)) {

  print("Leap Year")

}
```

**03)** Write a program to determine if a number is within the range of 10 to 50 (inclusive).

```
number = 25

if(number >= 10 && number <= 50) {

  print("Number is in the range")

}
```

---

### 2. If-Else Statements

**01)** Write a program to check if a number is even or odd.

```
number = 8  
if(number %% 2 == 0) {  
    print("Even")  
} else {  
    print("Odd")  
}
```

**02)** Write a program to compare two numbers and print the larger one.

```
a = 15  
b = 20  
if(a > b) {  
    print("a is larger")  
} else {  
    print("b is larger")  
}
```

**03)** Write a program to check if a user-entered username and password are correct. Print "Access Granted" if both match; otherwise, print "Access Denied".

```
username = "user"  
password = "pass123"  
  
input_user = readline(prompt = "Enter username: ")  
input_pass = readline(prompt = "Enter password: ")
```



```
if(input_user == username && input_pass == password) {  
    print("Access Granted")  
} else {  
    print("Access Denied")  
}
```

---

### 3. If-Elseif-Else Statements

**01)** Write a program to assign grades based on marks:

- Marks  $\geq$  80: "A"
- Marks  $\geq$  65: "B"
- Marks  $\geq$  50: "C"
- Otherwise: "F"

```
marks = 72  
  
if(marks  $\geq$  80) {  
    grade = "A"  
} else if(marks  $\geq$  65) {  
    grade = "B"  
} else if(marks  $\geq$  50) {  
    grade = "C"  
} else {  
    grade = "F"  
}  
  
print(grade)
```

**02)** Write a program to categorize a number as "Positive", "Negative", or "Zero".

```
number = -7  
if(number > 0) {  
    print("Positive")  
} else if(number < 0) {  
    print("Negative")  
} else {  
    print("Zero")  
}
```

**03)** Write a program to calculate the discount percentage based on purchase amount:

- = 500: 20%
- = 200: 10%
- Otherwise: 5%

```
amount = 350  
if(amount >= 500) {  
    discount = 20  
} else if(amount >= 200) {  
    discount = 10  
} else {  
    discount = 5  
}  
print(paste("Discount:", discount, "%"))
```

---

## 4. For Loops

**01)** Print all numbers from 1 to 10.

```
for(i in 1:10) {  
  print(i)  
}
```

**02)** Calculate and print the factorial of a number.

```
number = 5  
factorial = 1  
for(i in 1:number) {  
  factorial = factorial * i  
}  
print(factorial)
```

**03)** Print the squares of all elements in a given vector.

```
numbers = c(2, 4, 6, 8, 10)  
for(n in numbers) {  
  print(n^2)  
}
```

---

## 5. While Loops

**01)** Write a program to print the first 10 multiples of 3 using a while loop.

```
number = 1
```

```
while(number <= 10) {  
    print(number * 3)  
    number = number + 1  
}
```

**02)** Keep prompting the user to enter a number until they provide a positive number.

```
number = -1  
while(number <= 0) {  
    number = as.numeric(readline(prompt = "Enter a positive number: "))  
}  
print("Thank you!")
```

**03)** Simulate a simple ATM PIN validation system. The user must enter the correct PIN to exit the loop.

```
pin = 1234  
entered_pin = 0  
while(entered_pin != pin) {  
    entered_pin = as.numeric(readline(prompt = "Enter your PIN: "))  
    if(entered_pin != pin) {  
        print("Incorrect PIN. Try again.")  
    }  
}  
print("Access Granted!")
```

## Lab Sheet 02

### Part 01 : Fundamentals in R

#### 1. Functions in R

##### What are Functions?

Functions in R are reusable blocks of code designed to perform specific tasks. They can take inputs (arguments), perform operations, and return results.

---

#### 2. Tasks for User-Defined Functions

1. Write a function that prints "Hello, R!" to the console.

# Function definition

```
hello_function = function() {  
  print("Hello, R!")  
}
```

# Function call

```
hello_function()
```

2. Create a function that takes two numbers as input and returns their product.

# Function definition

```
multiply_numbers = function(a, b) {  
  return(a * b)  
}
```

# Function call

```
result = multiply_numbers(4, 5)
```

```
print(result)
```

3. Write a function that calculates the square of a number and adds 10 to the result.

```
# Function definition
```

```
calculate_square = function(x) {  
  return((x^2) + 10)  
}
```

```
# Function call
```

```
square_result = calculate_square(6)  
print(square_result)
```

---

### 3. Tasks for Anonymous Functions

4. Create an anonymous function to calculate the cube of a number and call it immediately.

```
# Anonymous function
```

```
print((function(x) x^3)(3))
```

5. Use an anonymous function with `sapply()` to double the values in a numeric vector.

```
# Numeric vector
```

```
values = c(5, 10, 15, 20)
```

```
# Using sapply with an anonymous function
```

```
result = sapply(values, function(x) x * 2)
```

```
print(result)
```

6. Apply an anonymous function to calculate the sum of squares for each row in a data frame.

```
# Data frame
```

```
data_frame = data.frame(A = c(2, 4, 6), B = c(3, 5, 7))
```

```
# Using apply with an anonymous function
```

```
row_sums = apply(data_frame, 1, function(x) sum(x^2))
```

```
print(row_sums)
```

---

#### 4. Advanced Task with Functions

7. Create a function that computes the perimeter of a rectangle by calling another function to calculate its area. The perimeter function should take the length and width as inputs.

```
# Area function
```

```
calculate_area = function(length, width) {  
  return(length * width)  
}
```

```
# Perimeter function
```

```
calculate_perimeter = function(length, width) {  
  area = calculate_area(length, width)  
  return(2 * (length + width))  
}
```

```
# Function call
```

```
perimeter_result = calculate_perimeter(5, 3)
```

```
print(perimeter_result)
```

---

## 5. Libraries in R

### What are Libraries?

Libraries in R are collections of pre-written functions and datasets that extend the functionality of R. Popular libraries include dplyr, ggplot2, and shiny.

### Examples of Libraries

#### 1. Data Manipulation

- Library: dplyr

#### 2. Visualization

- Library: ggplot2

#### 3. Machine Learning

- Library: randomForest

#### 4. Web Applications

- Library: shiny

### Additional Notes

- To install a library: `install.packages("library_name")`
- To check available datasets: `data()`
- Example: Load the built-in iris dataset and view its structure.
- `data("iris")`



- `str(iris)`

## Part 02 : Statistical Summaries with R

### 1. Descriptive Statistical Summaries

Descriptive statistics help summarize and describe the main features of a dataset. The iris dataset contains information about the sepal length, sepal width, petal length, and petal width of different species of flowers.

#### Basic Summaries

# Load the iris dataset

```
data("iris")
```

```
head(iris) # View the first few rows
```

# Summary statistics

```
summary(iris)
```

# Mean of each numerical column

```
sapply(iris[, 1:4], mean)
```

# Standard deviation of each numerical column

```
sapply(iris[, 1:4], sd)
```

# Range of each numerical column

```
sapply(iris[, 1:4], range)
```

---

## 2. Visualizations Using Base R

### 2.1 Bar Charts

Create a bar chart to display the count of each species in the dataset.

# Bar chart

```
species_count = table(iris$Species)
```

```
barplot(species_count, main = "Count of Species", col = "lightblue")
```

### 2.2 Pie Charts

Visualize the proportion of each species using a pie chart.

# Pie chart

```
pie(species_count, main = "Proportion of Species", col = rainbow(3))
```

### 2.3 Histograms

Create a histogram for Sepal Length to understand its distribution.

# Histogram

```
hist(iris$Sepal.Length, main = "Histogram of Sepal Length", col = "lightgreen",  
xlab = "Sepal Length")
```

### 2.4 Box Plots

Visualize the distribution of Sepal Length using a box plot.

# Box plot

```
boxplot(iris$Sepal.Length, main = "Box Plot of Sepal Length", col = "pink")
```

### 2.5 Multiple Bar Charts

Create a grouped bar chart to compare Sepal Length across species.

### # Multiple bar charts

```
sepal_mean = tapply(iris$Sepal.Length, iris$Species, mean)
barplot(sepal_mean, main = "Mean Sepal Length by Species", col = c("red",
"blue", "green"), beside = TRUE)
```

## 2.6 Side-by-Side Box Plots

Create side-by-side box plots for Sepal Length across species.

### # Side-by-side box plots

```
boxplot(Sepal.Length ~ Species, data = iris, main = "Sepal Length by Species",
col = c("red", "blue", "green"))
```

## 2.7 Scatter Plots

Visualize the relationship between Sepal Length and Petal Length using a scatter plot.

### # Scatter plot

```
plot(iris$Sepal.Length, iris$Petal.Length, main = "Scatter Plot: Sepal vs Petal
Length",
      xlab = "Sepal Length", ylab = "Petal Length", col = iris$Species, pch = 19)
```

---

## 3. Correlation

### What is Correlation?

Correlation measures the strength and direction of a linear relationship between two variables. The correlation coefficient ranges from -1 to 1:

- **1**: Perfect positive correlation
- **-1**: Perfect negative correlation
- **0**: No correlation

### Calculating Correlation in R

```
# Correlation between Sepal Length and Petal Length  
correlation = cor(iris$Sepal.Length, iris$Petal.Length)  
print(correlation)
```

---

## 4. Correlation Matrix

### What is a Correlation Matrix?

A correlation matrix displays the correlation coefficients between multiple variables in a dataset.

### Calculating Correlation Matrix

```
# Correlation matrix for numerical columns  
cor_matrix = cor(iris[, 1:4])  
print(cor_matrix)
```

### Visualizing Correlation Matrix

```
# Visualize the correlation matrix  
image(1:4, 1:4, cor_matrix, axes = FALSE, main = "Correlation Matrix", col =  
heat.colors(10))  
axis(1, at = 1:4, labels = colnames(iris)[1:4])  
axis(2, at = 1:4, labels = colnames(iris)[1:4])
```

## Lab Sheet 03

### Part 01 : Probability Distributions

#### Sample Codes for Binomial Distribution in R

##### 1. `dbinom()` - Probability Mass Function (PMF)

Calculates the probability of exactly  $x$  successes in  $n$  trials with success probability  $p$ .

`dbinom(x, size, prob)`

- **x** – Number of successes
- **size** – Number of trials
- **prob** – Probability of success in each trial

##### Example:

Probability of exactly 3 successes in 10 trials with  $p = 0.5$

`dbinom(3, size = 10, prob = 0.5)`

##### 2. `pbinom()` - Cumulative Distribution Function (CDF)

Calculates the cumulative probability up to  $x$  successes.

`pbinom(q, size, prob, lower.tail = TRUE)`

- **q** – Number of successes
- **size** – Number of trials
- **prob** – Probability of success
- **lower.tail** – TRUE for  $P(X \leq x)$ , FALSE for  $P(X > x)$

##### Example:

Probability of 3 or fewer successes in 10 trials with  $p = 0.5$

`pbinom(3, size = 10, prob = 0.5)`

Probability of more than 3 successes

`pbinom(3, size = 10, prob = 0.5, lower.tail = FALSE)`

### 3. `qbinom()` - Quantile Function (Inverse CDF)

Finds the number of successes corresponding to a given cumulative probability.

`qbinom(p, size, prob, lower.tail = TRUE)`

- **p** – Probability value (between 0 and 1)
- **size** – Number of trials
- **prob** – Probability of success
- **lower.tail** – TRUE for lower quantile, FALSE for upper quantile

#### Example:

Number of successes corresponding to 0.5 cumulative probability

`qbinom(0.5, size = 10, prob = 0.5)`

### 4. `rbinom()` - Random Sampling

Generates random samples from a binomial distribution.

`rbinom(n, size, prob)`

- **n** – Number of random samples
- **size** – Number of trials
- **prob** – Probability of success

#### Example:

Generate 10 random values from a binomial distribution

`rbinom(10, size = 10, prob = 0.5)`

## 1. Binomial Distribution

**Question 01)** A factory produces light bulbs, and the probability of a bulb being defective is 0.1. Out of a batch of 10 bulbs, what is the probability that

1. Exactly 2 bulbs are defective
2. At most 2 bulbs are defective

$n = 10$

$p = 0.1$

$\text{prob\_exactly\_2} = \text{dbinom}(2, \text{size} = n, \text{prob} = p)$

$\text{prob\_at\_most\_2} = \text{pbinom}(2, \text{size} = n, \text{prob} = p)$

$\text{print}(\text{prob\_exactly\_2})$

$\text{print}(\text{prob\_at\_most\_2})$

**Question 02)** A marketing survey finds that 40% of customers prefer brand A. In a random sample of 15 customers, what is the probability that

1. Exactly 6 customers prefer brand A
2. More than 6 customers prefer brand A

---

## 2. Hypergeometric Distribution

**Question 01)** A deck of cards has 52 cards, including 13 hearts. If 5 cards are drawn without replacement, what is the probability of getting exactly 2 hearts

$N = 52$

$K = 13$

$n = 5$

```
prob_2_hearts = dhyper(2, K, N - K, n)
```

```
print(prob_2_hearts)
```

**Question 02)** In a batch of 20 items, 7 are defective. If 6 items are randomly chosen, what is the probability that

1. Exactly 3 items are defective
  2. At least 3 items are defective
- 

### 3. Poisson Distribution

**Question 01)** A call center receives an average of 5 calls per minute. What is the probability of receiving exactly 7 calls in a minute

```
lambda = 5
```

```
prob_7_calls = dpois(7, lambda)
```

```
print(prob_7_calls)
```

**Question 02)** If a website gets an average of 10 hits per second, what is the probability that

1. No hits are received in a second
  2. At least 5 hits are received in a second
- 

### 4. Geometric Distribution

**Question 01)** A die is rolled until a 6 appears. What is the probability that it takes exactly 4 rolls to get a 6

```
p = 1/6
```

```
prob_4_rolls = dgeom(3, prob = p)
```

```
print(prob_4_rolls)
```



**Question 02)** The probability of a customer making a purchase at a store is 0.2. What is the probability that the first purchase occurs on the 5th customer

---

## 5. Negative Binomial Distribution

**Question 01)** A basketball player has a 60% chance of making a free throw. What is the probability that the player makes the 5th successful shot on the 8th attempt

`r = 5`

`p = 0.6`

`prob_5th_success = dnbinom(3, size = r, prob = p)`

`print(prob_5th_success)`

**Question 02)** A factory produces widgets, and 10% of them are defective. What is the probability that the 3rd defective widget is found on the 7th inspection

---

## 6. Exponential Distribution

**Question 01)** The average time between arrivals of buses at a station is 10 minutes. What is the probability that the next bus arrives within 5 minutes

`rate = 1/10`

`prob_within_5 = pexp(5, rate = rate)`

`print(prob_within_5)`

**Question 02)** A machine part has an average lifespan of 100 hours. What is the probability that it fails after 120 hours

---

## 7. Normal Distribution

**Question 01)** The heights of students in a class are normally distributed with a mean of 170 cm and a standard deviation of 10 cm. What is the probability that a randomly selected student is taller than 180 cm

mean = 170

sd = 10

prob\_taller\_180 = pnorm(180, mean, sd, lower.tail = FALSE)

print(prob\_taller\_180)

**Question 02)** IQ scores are normally distributed with a mean of 100 and a standard deviation of 15. What is the probability that a person's IQ is between 85 and 115

**Question 03)** A company's weekly sales are normally distributed with a mean of \$50,000 and a standard deviation of \$5,000. What is the probability that the sales are less than \$40,000

**Question 04)** What is the z-score for a value of \$60,000 in the above case

**Question 05)** Given the above distribution, find the 95th percentile of weekly sales

---

## 8. Gamma Distribution

**Question 01)** The time to complete a task follows a Gamma distribution with a shape parameter of 2 and a scale parameter of 3. What is the probability of completing the task in less than 5 units of time

shape = 2

scale = 3

prob\_less\_5 = pgamma(5, shape = shape, scale = scale)

print(prob\_less\_5)

**Question 02)** If the same task follows the above Gamma distribution, what is the density value at 4 units of time

---

## 9. Beta Distribution

**Question 01)** The proportion of defective items in a batch follows a Beta distribution with shape parameters  $\alpha = 2$  and  $\beta = 5$ . What is the probability that the proportion is less than 0.3

alpha = 2

beta = 5

```
prob_less_0_3 = pbeta(0.3, shape1 = alpha, shape2 = beta)
```

```
print(prob_less_0_3)
```

**Question 02)** What is the mode of the Beta distribution in Question 1

## Part 02 : Data Cleaning in R

Data cleaning is an essential step in data analysis, ensuring your dataset is accurate, consistent, and suitable for analysis. This lab sheet covers three key aspects of data cleaning in R

- Handling Missing Values
- Handling Duplicates
- Handling Outliers

We will use manually created data frames to demonstrate these concepts.

### 1. Handling Missing Values

#### Sample Dataset with Missing Values

```
df = data.frame(  
  ID = 1:8,  
  Name = c("Alice", "Bob", "Charlie", "David", NA, "Frank", "George", "Helen"),  
  Age = c(25, NA, 30, 45, 50, NA, 34, 29),  
  Score = c(85, 90, NA, 88, 75, 80, 95, NA)  
)  
print(df)
```

### **Detecting Missing Values**

```
# Check for NA values
```

```
table(is.na(df))
```

```
# Column-wise count of missing values
```

```
colSums(is.na(df))
```

### **Handling Missing Values**

**Method 1:** Removing Rows with Missing Values

```
df_clean = na.omit(df)
```

```
print(df_clean)
```

**Method 2:** Filling Missing Values with Mean/Median/Mode

```
# Fill Age column with mean
```

```
df$Age[is.na(df$Age)] = mean(df$Age, na.rm = TRUE)
```

```
# Fill Score column with median
```

```
df$Score[is.na(df$Score)] = median(df$Score, na.rm = TRUE)
```

```
print(df)
```

### **Method 3: Using mice Library for Advanced Imputation**

```
library(mice)
```

```
df_imputed = mice(df, method = "pmm", m = 1)
```

```
df_cleaned = complete(df_imputed)
```

```
print(df_cleaned)
```

## **2. Handling Duplicates**

### **Sample Dataset with Duplicates**

```
df_duplicates = data.frame(
```

```
  ID = c(1, 2, 3, 3, 4, 5, 5, 6),
```

```
  Name = c("Alice", "Bob", "Charlie", "Charlie", "David", "Frank", "Frank",  
"George"),
```

```
  Age = c(25, 30, 30, 30, 40, 50, 50, 60)
```

```
)
```

```
print(df_duplicates)
```

### **Detecting Duplicates**

```
# Identify duplicates
```

```
duplicated(df_duplicates)
```

```
# Display duplicate rows
```

```
df_duplicates[duplicated(df_duplicates), ]
```

## Removing Duplicates

### Method 1: Remove All Duplicate Rows

```
df_unique = df_duplicates[!duplicated(df_duplicates), ]  
print(df_unique)
```

### Method 2: Keep Only the Last Occurrence

```
df_last = df_duplicates[!duplicated(df_duplicates, fromLast = TRUE), ]  
print(df_last)
```

## 3. Handling Outliers

### Sample Dataset with Outliers

```
df_outliers = data.frame(  
  Student = c("A", "B", "C", "D", "E", "F", "G"),  
  Scores = c(78, 85, 90, 95, 150, 200, 88) # 150 and 200 are outliers  
)  
print(df_outliers)
```

### Detecting Outliers

#### Method 1: Using Boxplot

```
boxplot(df_outliers$Scores, main = "Boxplot for Scores")
```

#### Method 2: Using IQR (Interquartile Range)

```
Q1 = quantile(df_outliers$Scores, 0.25)
```

```
Q3 = quantile(df_outliers$Scores, 0.75)
```

```
IQR_value = Q3 - Q1
```

## # Identifying Outliers

```
outlier_condition = df_outliers$Scores < (Q1 - 1.5 * IQR_value) |  
df_outliers$Scores > (Q3 + 1.5 * IQR_value)  
  
print(df_outliers[outlier_condition, ])
```

## Handling Outliers

### Method 1: Removing Outliers

```
df_no_outliers = df_outliers[!outlier_condition, ]  
  
print(df_no_outliers)
```

### Method 2: Capping Outliers (Winsorizing)

# Cap extreme values at upper and lower thresholds

```
df_outliers$Scores[df_outliers$Scores > (Q3 + 1.5 * IQR_value)] = Q3 + 1.5 *  
IQR_value  
  
df_outliers$Scores[df_outliers$Scores < (Q1 - 1.5 * IQR_value)] = Q1 - 1.5 *  
IQR_value  
  
print(df_outliers)
```

## Lab Sheet 04

### 1. One-Sample t-Test

- To determine if the mean of a single sample differs from a specified value

# Create vector to hold plant heights

```
my_data = c(14, 14, 16, 13, 12, 17, 15, 14, 15, 13, 15, 14)
```

# Perform one-sample t-test

```
t.test(my_data, mu = 15)
```

- mu - The hypothesized mean value
  - Output includes the t-statistic, degrees of freedom, p-value, and confidence interval
- 

### 2. Two-Sample t-Test

- To compare the means of two independent samples

# Create vectors for plant heights from two groups

```
group1 = c(8, 8, 9, 9, 9, 11, 12, 13, 13, 14, 15, 19)
```

```
group2 = c(11, 12, 13, 13, 14, 14, 14, 15, 16, 18, 18, 19)
```

# Perform two-sample t-test

```
t.test(group1, group2, var.equal = TRUE)
```

- var.equal - Specifies whether to assume equal variances
- Output includes comparison of means, confidence intervals, and p-value



---

### 3. One-Sample z-Test

- To test if the mean of a sample differs from a known population mean when the population standard deviation is known

# Load BSDA library

```
library(BSDA)
```

# IQ levels for 20 patients

```
data = c(88, 92, 94, 94, 96, 97, 97, 97, 99, 99, 105, 109, 109, 109, 110, 112, 112, 113, 114, 115)
```

# Perform one-sample z-test

```
z.test(data, mu = 100, sigma.x = 15)
```

- mu - Population mean
- sigma.x - Known standard deviation

---

### 4. Two-Sample z-Test

- To compare the means of two independent samples with known population standard deviations

# IQ levels for individuals in two cities

```
cityA = c(82, 84, 85, 89, 91, 91, 92, 94, 99, 99, 105, 109, 109, 109, 110, 112, 112, 113, 114, 114)
```

```
cityB = c(90, 91, 91, 91, 95, 95, 99, 99, 108, 109, 109, 114, 115, 116, 117, 117, 128, 129, 130, 133)
```

# Perform two-sample z-test

```
z.test(x = cityA, y = cityB, mu = 0, sigma.x = 15, sigma.y = 15)
```

---

## 5. Variance Ratio Test (F-Test)

- To compare variances of two independent samples

# Plant heights from two groups

```
group1 = c(5, 6, 6, 8, 10, 12, 12, 13, 14, 15, 15, 17, 18, 18, 19)
```

```
group2 = c(9, 9, 10, 12, 12, 13, 14, 16, 16, 19, 22, 24, 26, 29, 29)
```

# Perform variance ratio test

```
var.test(group1, group2)
```

---

## 6. One-Proportion z-Test

- To test if a population proportion differs from a specified value

# Proportion of COVID-positive patients

```
prop.test(x = 60, n = 100, p = 0.5, alternative = "greater")
```

- x - Number of successes
  - n - Sample size
  - p - Hypothesized proportion
- 

## 7. Two-Proportions z-Test

- To compare proportions between two groups

# Proportions of COVID-positive patients in two groups

```
prop.test(x = c(60, 80), n = c(100, 200), alternative = "greater")
```

---

## 8. Analysis of Variance (ANOVA)

- To compare means across multiple groups

```
# Load iris dataset
```

```
data("iris")
```

```
colnames(iris) = c("SL", "SW", "PL", "PW", "Specs")
```

```
st_data = stack(iris[, 1:4])
```

```
# Perform ANOVA
```

```
ano_tab = aov(values ~ ind, data = st_data)
```

```
summary(ano_tab)
```

---

## 9. Levene's Test

- To test equality of variances

```
# Load car library
```

```
library(car)
```

```
# Perform Levene's test
```

```
leveneTest(values ~ ind, data = st_data)
```

---

## 10. Post-Hoc Analysis - Fisher's LSD

- To perform pairwise comparisons after ANOVA

```
# Create data frame

df = data.frame(technique = rep(c("tech1", "tech2", "tech3"), each = 10),
               score = c(72, 73, 73, 77, 82, 82, 83, 84, 85, 89,
                        81, 82, 83, 83, 83, 84, 87, 90, 92, 93,
                        77, 78, 79, 88, 89, 90, 91, 95, 95, 98))

# Fit one-way ANOVA

model = aov(score ~ technique, data = df)

summary(model)

# Fisher's LSD

library(agricolae)

LSD.test(model, "technique")
```

---

## 11. Testing Normality

- To check if data follows a normal distribution

```
# Generate random data from normal distribution

data = rnorm(100)

shapiro.test(data)

hist(data, col = "steelblue")

# Check normality for iris dataset

shapiro.test(iris$Sepal.Length)
```

```
hist(iris$Sepal.Length)
```

---

## 12. Correlation Analysis

- To measure the strength and direction of relationships between variables

```
# Data frame
```

```
df = data.frame(hours = c(1, 1, 3, 2, 4, 3, 5, 6),  
                prac_exams = c(4, 3, 3, 2, 3, 2, 1, 4),  
                score = c(69, 74, 74, 70, 89, 85, 99, 90))
```

```
# Pearson correlation
```

```
cor(df$hours, df$score)
```

```
cor(df)
```

```
# Correlation test
```

```
x = c(2, 3, 3, 5, 6, 9, 14, 15, 19, 21, 22, 23)
```

```
y = c(23, 24, 24, 23, 17, 28, 38, 34, 35, 39, 41, 43)
```

```
# Scatterplot
```

```
plot(x, y, pch = 16, col = "red")
```

```
cor.test(x, y)
```

## Lab Sheet 05

### Part 01

#### Step 1: Load the Required Libraries

```
library(MASS)
```

The MASS package contains datasets like Boston that we'll use in this lab.

---

#### Step 2: Load the Data

```
data("Boston")
```

The Boston dataset includes housing data with variables like crime rate, tax, and median home value (medv).

---

### Simple Linear Regression

Simple Linear Regression is used to understand the relationship between one independent variable (lstat) and the dependent variable (medv).

#### Code

```
fit1 = lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston)
```

```
summary(fit1)
```

#### Explanation

- `lm()` creates a linear model.
  - `medv ~ lstat` means predicting medv using lstat.
  - `summary(fit1)` displays key metrics like coefficients and p-values.
- 

### Multiple Linear Regression

This extends simple linear regression by using multiple independent variables.

### Code Example 1

```
fit2 = lm(medv ~ lstat + black, data = Boston)
summary(fit2)
```

### Code Example 2 (Using All Variables)

```
fit3 = lm(medv ~ ., data = Boston)
summary(fit3)
```

### Excluding Specific Variables

```
fit4 = lm(medv ~ . - indus, data = Boston)
summary(fit4)
```

### Explanation

- `medv ~ .` uses all variables except the target (`medv`).
  - `- indus` removes the `indus` variable.
- 

### Splitting Data for Training and Testing

#### Code

```
trainID = sample(1:nrow(Boston), round(0.8 * nrow(Boston)))
train = Boston[trainID, ]
test = Boston[-trainID, ]
```

#### Explanation

- `sample()` splits the data into 80% training and 20% testing datasets.
- 

### Model Training and Predictions

#### Code

```
fit = lm(medv ~ ., data = train)
```

```
summary(fit)
```

```
y_pred = predict(fit, test)
```

```
y_actual = test$medv
```

### Explanation

- `predict()` estimates values for the test dataset.
- 

## Model Evaluation

Calculate errors to assess model performance.

### Code

```
MSE = mean((y_actual - y_pred)^2)
```

```
RMSE = sqrt(MSE)
```

MSE

RMSE

### Explanation

- **MSE** (Mean Squared Error): Average of squared errors.
  - **RMSE** (Root Mean Squared Error): Square root of MSE.
- 

## Handling Dummy Variables

### Dataset

```
library(pROC)
```

```
data("aSAH")
```



```
aSAH$outcome = factor(aSAH$outcome)
```

```
aSAH$gender = factor(aSAH$gender)
```

```
contrasts(aSAH$gender)
```

### Model

```
fit = lm(ndka ~ s100b + outcome + gender, data = aSAH)
```

```
summary(fit)
```

### Explanation

- Convert categorical variables to factors for regression.
- contrasts() shows how R handles dummy variables.

## Part 02

### Assumption 1: Linearity

The relationship between the independent and dependent variables should be linear.

### Code

```
plot(Boston$lstat, Boston$medv, main = "Scatterplot of lstat vs medv",
```

```
      xlab = "lstat", ylab = "medv")
```

```
abline(lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston), col = "red")
```

### Explanation

- A scatterplot shows the relationship between the predictor (lstat) and the response (medv).
  - The red line is the fitted regression line. The points should follow a linear pattern.
-

## Assumption 2: Independence

The residuals (errors) should be independent.

### Code

```
library(lmtest)

dwtest(lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston))
```

### Explanation

- The Durbin-Watson test checks for autocorrelation in the residuals.
  - A test statistic close to 2 indicates no autocorrelation.
- 

## Assumption 3: Homoscedasticity

The residuals should have constant variance.

### Code

```
fit = lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston)

plot(fitted(fit), residuals(fit), main = "Residuals vs Fitted Values",
     xlab = "Fitted Values", ylab = "Residuals")

abline(h = 0, col = "red")
```

### Explanation

- A residuals vs. fitted values plot is used to check homoscedasticity.
  - The residuals should be randomly scattered around zero.
  - Patterns (e.g., funnel shapes) indicate heteroscedasticity.
- 

## Assumption 4: Normality of Residuals

The residuals should be normally distributed.

## Code

```
qqnorm(residuals(fit), main = "Normal Q-Q Plot")
```

```
qqline(residuals(fit), col = "red")
```

## Explanation

- A Q-Q plot compares the distribution of residuals to a normal distribution.
- The points should fall along the red reference line.

## Additional Test

```
shapiro.test(residuals(fit))
```

- The Shapiro-Wilk test checks for normality. A p-value > 0.05 indicates normality.
- 

## Assumption 5: No Multicollinearity

Independent variables should not be highly correlated.

## Code

```
library(car)
```

```
vif(lm(medv ~ ., data = Boston))
```

## Explanation

- Variance Inflation Factor (VIF) checks multicollinearity.

VIF values > 5 indicate significant multicollinearity

## Lab Sheet 06

### Assumption 1: Linearity

The relationship between the independent and dependent variables should be linear.

#### Code

```
plot(Boston$lstat, Boston$medv, main = "Scatterplot of lstat vs medv",  
      xlab = "lstat", ylab = "medv")  
abline(lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston), col = "red")
```

#### Explanation

- A scatterplot shows the relationship between the predictor (lstat) and the response (medv).
- The red line is the fitted regression line. The points should follow a linear pattern.

### Assumption 2: Independence

The residuals (errors) should be independent.

#### Code

```
library(lmtest)  
dwtest(lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston))
```

#### Explanation

- The Durbin-Watson test checks for autocorrelation in the residuals.
- A test statistic close to 2 indicates no autocorrelation.

### Assumption 3: Homoscedasticity

The residuals should have constant variance.

## Code

```
fit = lm(medv ~ lstat, data = Boston)
plot(fitted(fit), residuals(fit), main = "Residuals vs Fitted Values",
     xlab = "Fitted Values", ylab = "Residuals")
abline(h = 0, col = "red")
```

## Explanation

- A residuals vs. fitted values plot is used to check homoscedasticity.
- The residuals should be randomly scattered around zero.
- Patterns (e.g., funnel shapes) indicate heteroscedasticity.

## Assumption 4: Normality of Residuals

The residuals should be normally distributed.

## Code

```
qqnorm(residuals(fit), main = "Normal Q-Q Plot")
qqline(residuals(fit), col = "red")
```

## Explanation

- A Q-Q plot compares the distribution of residuals to a normal distribution.
- The points should fall along the red reference line.

## Additional Test

```
shapiro.test(residuals(fit))
```

- The Shapiro-Wilk test checks for normality. A p-value > 0.05 indicates normality.

## Assumption 5: No Multicollinearity

Independent variables should not be highly correlated.

### **Code**

```
library(car)
```

```
vif(lm(medv ~ ., data = Boston))
```

### **Explanation**

- Variance Inflation Factor (VIF) checks multicollinearity.
- VIF values > 5 indicate significant multicollinearity.

## Lab Sheet 07

### Load the Data

First, we will load the 'Hitters' dataset from the ISLR library and handle any missing values.

```
library(ISLR)
data("Hitters")
sum(is.na(Hitters)) # Check for missing values
```

```
Hitters = na.omit(Hitters) # Remove rows with missing values
nrow(Hitters) # Number of rows after cleaning
```

---

### Best Subset Selection

We will use the leaps package to perform Best Subset Selection and evaluate the model performance using different metrics such as RSS, R-squared, Cp, BIC, and Adjusted R-squared.

```
library(leaps)
best = regsubsets(Salary~., data = Hitters, nvmax = 19) # Perform Best Subset Selection
results = summary(best)

# Model selection metrics
RSS = results$rss
r2 = results$rsq
Cp = results$cp
```

```
BIC = results$bic
```

```
Adj_r2 = results$adjr2
```

```
cbind(RSS, r2, Cp, BIC, Adj_r2) # Combine and display metrics
```

```
# Identify the best models
```

```
which.min(Cp) # Model with minimum Cp
```

```
which.min(BIC) # Model with minimum BIC
```

```
which.max(Adj_r2) # Model with maximum Adjusted R-squared
```

```
coef(best, 10) # Coefficients for the model with 10 predictors (based on Cp)
```

```
coef(best, 6) # Coefficients for the model with 6 predictors (based on BIC)
```

```
coef(best, 11) # Coefficients for the model with 11 predictors (based on  
Adjusted R-squared)
```

---

## Forward Stepwise Selection

Next, we will use the Forward Stepwise Selection method to select the best subset of predictors.

```
fwd = regsubsets(Salary~., data = Hitters, nvmax = 19, method = "forward")
```

```
results = summary(fwd)
```

```
# Model selection metrics
```

```
RSS = results$rss
```

```
r2 = results$rsq
```

```
Cp = results$cp
```



```
BIC = results$bic
```

```
Adj_r2 = results$adjr2
```

```
cbind(RSS, r2, Cp, BIC, Adj_r2)
```

```
# Identify the best models
```

```
which.min(Cp)
```

```
which.min(BIC)
```

```
which.max(Adj_r2)
```

```
coef(fwd, 10) # Coefficients for the model with 10 predictors (based on Cp)
```

```
coef(fwd, 6) # Coefficients for the model with 6 predictors (based on BIC)
```

```
coef(fwd, 11) # Coefficients for the model with 11 predictors (based on  
Adjusted R-squared)
```

---

## Backward Stepwise Selection

Finally, we will use the Backward Stepwise Selection method to identify the best subset of predictors.

```
bwd = regsubsets(Salary~., data = Hitters, nvmax = 19, method = "backward")
```

```
results = summary(bwd)
```

```
# Model selection metrics
```

```
RSS = results$rss
```

```
r2 = results$rsq
```

```
Cp = results$cp
```

```
BIC = results$bic
```

```
Adj_r2 = results$adjr2
```

```
cbind(RSS, r2, Cp, BIC, Adj_r2)
```

```
# Identify the best models
```

```
which.min(Cp)
```

```
which.min(BIC)
```

```
which.max(Adj_r2)
```

```
coef(bwd, 10) # Coefficients for the model with 10 predictors (based on Cp)
```

```
coef(bwd, 8) # Coefficients for the model with 8 predictors (based on BIC)
```

```
coef(bwd, 11) # Coefficients for the model with 11 predictors (based on  
Adjusted R-squared)
```

## Lab Sheet 08

### Load and Prepare the Data

We will use the built-in "mtcars" dataset for this lab. The dataset contains various measurements of car performance and design.

```
# Load the mtcars dataset
```

```
data("mtcars")
```

```
head(mtcars) # View the first few rows
```

```
# Standardize the data
```

```
mtcars_scaled = scale(mtcars)
```

```
head(mtcars_scaled) # View the scaled data
```

---

### Perform PCA

We will use the `prcomp()` function to perform PCA on the scaled dataset.

```
# Perform PCA
```

```
pca_result = prcomp(mtcars_scaled, center = TRUE, scale. = TRUE)
```

```
# Summary of PCA results
```

```
summary(pca_result)
```

```
# View the rotation matrix (principal components)
```

```
pca_result$rotation
```

```
# View the principal component scores
```

```
head(pca_result$x)
```

---

## **Visualize PCA Results**

We will use the factoextra and ggplot2 packages to visualize the PCA results.

```
# Install and load the required libraries
```

```
library(factoextra)
```

```
library(ggplot2)
```

```
# Scree plot to visualize variance explained by each principal component
```

```
fviz_eig(pca_result)
```

```
# PCA biplot
```

```
fviz_pca_biplot(pca_result, label = "var", addEllipses = TRUE)
```

```
# PCA individual plot
```

```
fviz_pca_ind(pca_result, addEllipses = TRUE)
```

```
# PCA variable plot
```

```
fviz_pca_var(pca_result)
```

---

## Reconstruct Data Using Principal Components

If needed, we can reconstruct the original data using a subset of principal components.

```
# Reconstruct the data using the first two principal components
```

```
reconstructed_data = pca_result$x[, 1:2] %*% t(pca_result$rotation[, 1:2])
```

```
# Add the mean back to the reconstructed data
```

```
reconstructed_data = scale(reconstructed_data, center = -colMeans(mtcars),  
scale = FALSE)
```

```
head(reconstructed_data)
```